Loop Reordering, Cache Blocking and CSR Storage: When Do They Speed Up Sequential Matrix Multiplication in C?

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Abstract

This study asks two questions about sequential float64 matrix multiplication in C on one laptop (Intel Core i7-12650H, Windows 11). First, how much do loop reordering (i-k-j) and cache blocking improve on the naive i-j-k kernel validated in Assignment 1? Second, under which tested conditions does an own CSR implementation (dense-to-CSR conversion plus Gustavson SpGEMM) beat the dense blocked kernel on the same matrices? All kernels were validated against NumPy and SciPy and timed as one warm-up plus five repetitions (median and IQR), with a 60 s limit per kernel execution and a 4 GiB memory budget. Loop reordering alone gave 8.9–11.8× at n = 512–1536. Blocking with the best tile (T = 128, not the L1d-sized tile we predicted) matched i-k-j while the data fitted in cache and was 1.3–2.2× faster from n = 1536. The largest feasible size was 1536 for i-j-k and 4096 (the largest attempted) for the optimised kernels. For uniformly random sparse inputs, CSR was faster than dense up to 25 % density and slower at 50 % for n = 1000, 2000 and 4000. The advantage depended on n and on output fill-in, not only on the percentage of zeros. These conclusions apply only to the tested kernels, inputs and machine.

1. Introduction and objective

The naive i-j-k kernel of Assignment 1 [16] showed that its runtime is dominated by where matrix B sits in the memory hierarchy, not by the n^3 operation count. This study asks whether changing the access pattern, or the storage format when most entries are zero, removes that cost. Part A changes the loop order and the traversal of the matrices without changing the arithmetic. Part B changes the representation, so that only non-zero entries are stored and multiplied.

Research questions.

- **RQ1.** How much do loop reordering (i-k-j) and cache blocking reduce the runtime of the i-j-k baseline as n grows, and what is the largest feasible size of each method under the declared budget?
- **RQ2.** Which tile size is best for the blocked kernel, and how does it relate to the L1d and L2 cache sizes?
- **RQ3.** For matched random sparse inputs, at which densities is an own CSR SpGEMM faster and smaller in memory than the dense blocked kernel, and how do size, conversion and output fill-in change the answer?

Hypotheses (predictions stated before the results were analysed).

- **H1.** i-k-j is much faster than i-j-k once B no longer fits in L2 ($n \geq 512$), because it replaces the stride-n column walk of B with unit-stride row walks. For small n the gain should be smaller.

- **H2.** Blocking gives no gain over i-k-j while the matrices fit in cache. It is faster only once the data streamed for each row of C no longer fits in the last-level cache.
- **H3.** The best tile is T = 64, for which one tile (32 KiB) fits in the 48 KiB L1d cache.
- **H4.** CSR is faster than dense at low density and slower at high density. The advantage shrinks as the density d grows, because SpGEMM work grows as d^2n^3 and each sparse operation costs more than a dense one.
- **H5.** The product becomes denser than the inputs (fill-in), so the memory advantage of CSR disappears once C is nearly dense.

2. Background

Locality and the cache hierarchy. Caches keep recently used data close to the processor and move it in 64-byte lines [3], [4]. A program is fast when it reuses data while it is still cached (temporal locality) and reads consecutive addresses (spatial locality). Matrices are stored row-major, so walking a row is cheap and walking a column touches a new cache line at every step. On the test machine each P-core has a 48 KiB L1d and a 1.25 MiB L2 cache, and all cores share a 24 MiB L3 [2], [14].

Loop reordering. The three loops of C = AB can be nested in any order without changing the result (up to floating-point rounding). In the i-k-j order the inner loop computes `C[i][j] += A[i][k] * B[k][j]` over j, so both B and C are read along rows with unit stride and `A[i][k]` stays in a register [3]. The work is still n^3 multiply-adds. Only the memory access pattern changes.

Cache blocking (tiling). Even with unit stride, i-k-j streams all of B ($8n^2$ bytes) once for every row of C. When B is larger than a cache level, it is reloaded from the next level n times. Blocking splits the loops into T × T tiles so that a tile of B is reused for T rows of C while it is still cached [5]. Lam, Rothberg and Wolf showed that the best tile depends on the cache size and on the matrix size and stride, because of self-interference (conflict) misses. They also showed that filling the whole cache, or a fixed fraction of it, is not a reliable rule [5]. High-performance libraries build on the same idea with several levels of blocking and packed buffers [6].

CSR format. Compressed Sparse Row stores a matrix with nnz non-zeros in three arrays: the values, their column indices, and a row-pointer array of length n + 1 that marks where each row starts [7]. Here the values are float64, the column indices int32 and the row pointers int64, i.e. 12 bytes per non-zero plus 8(n + 1) bytes, compared with $8n^2$ bytes for the dense form.

Gustavson SpGEMM. Gustavson's algorithm builds C row by row: row i of C is the sum of the rows k of B scaled by each non-zero `A[i][k]` [8]. Only products of two non-zeros are computed. For uniformly random inputs of density d, the expected number of multiply-adds is d^2n^3, compared with n^3 for a dense kernel. The cost per operation is higher, because each product needs an index lookup and an irregular write into an accumulator.

Output fill-in. An entry C[i][j] is structurally non-zero if at least one of the n products A[i][k]B[k][j] has two non-zero factors. If entries are independent with probability d, each product is non-zero with probability d^2, so the expected output density is $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$. This value grows with n as well as with d: for d = 1 % it is 9.5 % at n = 1000 but 63 % at n = 10000. Once C is dense, CSR stores it with 12 bytes per entry instead of 8.

3. Methodology

3.1 Implementations (own code vs libraries)

All timed code is our own C code (`c/matmul.c`, `c/csr.c`), compiled with gcc, float64 and one thread. NumPy [10] and SciPy [9] are used only as correctness references, and NumPy also for input generation and analysis. No library kernel is benchmarked.

Method	Description
`ijk` (baseline)	Assignment 1 C kernel (tag `assignment-1`), copied verbatim and only renamed: dot product in a local accumulator, B read by columns
`ikj`	loop reordering: `A[i][k]` hoisted, inner loop over j adds `a_ik * B[k][j]` into row i of C with unit stride
`blocked`	cache blocking with square T × T tiles: tile loops ii-kk-jj, i-k-j micro-kernel inside each tile, shorter edge tiles when T does not divide n
`dense_to_csr`	own conversion of A and B: one pass counts the non-zeros, then exact allocation, then a second pass fills the arrays
`csr_gustavson`	own SpGEMM: symbolic pass (nnz of each row of C, using a marker array), exact allocation of C, numeric pass with a dense accumulator and marker, column indices sorted per row (insertion sort or `qsort`, or a linear scan of the marker array when a row fills at least 1/64 of the columns)

The three dense kernels allocate and zero-initialise C with `calloc` inside the function, as in Assignment 1. The SpGEMM keeps every *structural* non-zero, including entries whose products cancel to exactly 0.0. SciPy drops such entries, so the cross-check handles both cases (Section 3.5).

3.2 Inputs

- **Dense inputs (Part A).** Reused from Assignment 1: `data/generate.py` writes `A_n{n}.bin` and `B_n{n}.bin` with NumPy `default_rng` (PCG64), values uniform in [−1, 1), seeds 42 (A) and 43 (B), raw little-endian float64 in row-major order. All three methods read the same files.
- **Sparse inputs (Part B).** `data/generate_sparse.py` draws exactly nnz = round($d \cdot n^2$) distinct positions uniformly without replacement, then values uniform in [−1, 1), redrawing any exact 0.0 (seeds 42 and 43). Each matrix is written in CSR and, for the sizes compared with dense, also as a dense file holding the same matrix (its dense twin), so that both methods multiply identical inputs. Parameters are recorded in `data/sparse/manifest.json`. Density is the percentage of non-zero entries and sparsity the percentage of zeros (100 − density).
- **Sizes.** Part A: n = 64, 128, 256, 512, 768, 1024, 1536, 2048, 3072, 4096. Tile sweep: T = 16, 32, 64, 128, 256 at n = 1024 and 2048. Part B: densities 0.1, 1, 5, 10, 25 and 50 % at n = 1000, 2000 and 4000 (CSR and dense blocked with the tile chosen in the sweep), plus n = 10000 for CSR only (no dense twin is generated at that size, so the dense run and the conversion were not run by design).

3.3 Environment

Item	Value
CPU	Intel Core i7-12650H: 6 P-cores (Hyper-Threading) and 4 E-cores; 10 physical cores, 16 logical processors
Caches (P-core)	L1d 48 KiB and L2 1.25 MiB per core; L3 24 MiB shared; 64-byte lines (`tools/cache_info.json` [14])
RAM	15.7 GiB
OS	Windows 11 (build 10.0.26200)

Item	Value
Compiler	gcc 16.1.0 (MSYS2 UCRT64), `-O2 -std=c11 -Wall -Wextra`, no `-march=native`
Python tools	CPython 3.13.7, NumPy 2.5.4, SciPy 1.18.1 (references only), psutil 7.2.2
Execution	1 thread; process pinned to the P-core logical processors 0–11 (found with `GetSystemCpuSetInformation` [13]), high priority
Runs	2026-10-21: tile sweep from 19:25, dense from 19:48, sparse from 20:01

The harness records a note in the CSV if CPU affinity or priority cannot be applied. No such note appears in any of the three result files, so pinning was in effect for all reported data. This addresses a limitation of Assignment 1.

3.4 Measurement protocol and budgets

- **Timing boundary.** One kernel call is timed with `QueryPerformanceCounter` (100 ns resolution [12]). Dense kernels and SpGEMM include the allocation of C. The conversion includes the allocation of both CSR matrices. Input loading, checksums and `free` are outside the timed region. The CSR end-to-end time is *derived* as median conversion + median SpGEMM. It is not a separate measured run, and it is never mixed with the kernel-only times without being labelled.
- **Repetitions.** One child process per configuration loads the inputs, runs 1 warm-up (excluded) and 5 measured repetitions, and prints a checksum of C after every repetition so that the work cannot be eliminated. We report the median and the interquartile range (IQR = Q3 − Q1). All raw rows are kept in `results/{tiles,dense,sparse}/raw_measurements.csv`.
- **Memory metric.** Peak working set (`peak_wset`) of the child process, read with psutil [11] by the harness while the child waits on stdin after printing its results. This is the operating system's peak counter for the whole process (inputs, output, workspace and runtime) over the warm-up and all repetitions, not the storage of the output alone.
- **Budgets (declared before measuring).** Time: 60 s per kernel execution. The deadline restarts after every warm-up or repetition, and a single execution above 60 s kills the process and is recorded as `timeout` with no time. Memory: 4 GiB peak working set. The estimate ($3 \cdot 8n^2$ bytes for dense; CSR inputs plus a CSR output with the expected nnz for SpGEMM) is checked before launch. While the process runs, its working set is polled every 0.25 s and the process is killed above the budget. After a failure at size n, larger sizes of the same series are recorded as `skipped_after_<status>`.

3.5 Correctness

The C unit tests (`c/test_matmul.c`) cover identity, zero and hand-computed 1×1, 2×2 and 3×3 products for every dense method. They check that all methods agree with `ijk` for n = 1, 7, 63, 64, 65 and 130 with tiles 16, 64 and 128 (including edge tiles), and that tile = 0 is rejected. For CSR they cover a known conversion with an empty row, the dense→CSR→dense round trip, all-zero and identity matrices, a known product, a structural zero created by cancellation, a shape mismatch, SpGEMM against dense `ijk` on random matrices, and the file round trip.

`cross_check.py` compares every dense method (tiles 16, 64, 128) with NumPy `A @ B` for n = 64, 100 and 130. For n = 50 and 200 at all six densities, it checks that the own conversion reproduces the generated CSR exactly and compares the own SpGEMM with `scipy.sparse` `A @ B`. That comparison covers the values, the sorted CSR structure, the structural nnz (equal to the nnz of the boolean product pattern) and the entries that are numerically non-zero (a disagreement is allowed only for entries within

atol of zero, because SciPy drops exact zeros). As in Assignment 1, values must satisfy `numpy.allclose` with rtol = 10^{-9} and atol = 10^{-12}. The rounding error from a different summation order is about $n \cdot 2^{-53}$ relative (around 10^{-13} here), while an indexing error produces O(1) differences. In the stored cross-check outputs the largest dense difference was 1.6×10^{-14}. The SpGEMM values were identical to SciPy's, and the structural nnz matched SciPy's in all twelve sparse cases (no exact cancellation occurred in these inputs; it is covered by the unit test).

4. Results

4.1 Tile sweep (Part A)

Table 1. Blocked kernel runtime against tile size: median and IQR of 5 repetitions (seconds). The last column is the size of the three T × T tiles touched by the micro-kernel ($3 \cdot 8T^2$ bytes).

T	n = 1024 median	IQR	n = 2048 median	IQR	Three tiles
16	0.238	0.0024	3.27	0.134	6 KiB
32	0.202	0.0006	2.92	0.009	24 KiB
64	0.213	0.0005	2.78	0.038	96 KiB
128	**0.193**	0.0028	**2.58**	0.045	384 KiB
256	0.231	0.0009	2.98	0.095	1.5 MiB

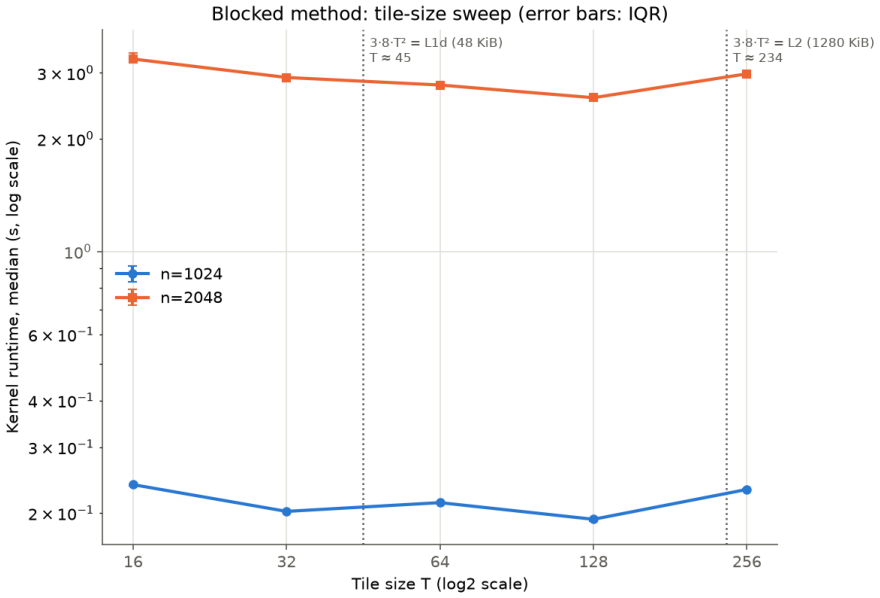


Figure 1. Blocked kernel runtime against tile size at n = 1024 and 2048 (log scales, IQR error bars). The dotted lines mark where three tiles fill the L1d (T ≈ 45) and the L2 (T ≈ 234).

T = 128 was the fastest tile at both sizes and was used for every later blocked run. It was 5 % faster than the second-best tile at n = 1024 (T = 32) and 8 % faster than the second-best at n = 2048 (T = 64). H3 is therefore rejected.

4.2 Dense methods (Part A)

Table 2. Kernel runtime: median and IQR of 5 repetitions (seconds). Blocked uses T = 128. Timeout = one kernel execution exceeded 60 s.

n	ijk median	ijk IQR	ikj median	ikj IQR	blocked median	blocked IQR
64	0.0000699	0.0000021	0.0000376	0.0000001	0.0000407	0.0000037
128	0.000991	0.000003	0.000405	0.000001	0.000346	0.000042
256	0.00806	0.00037	0.00291	0.000004	0.00294	0.00007
512	0.278	0.001	0.0236	0.0004	0.0237	0.0002
768	0.697	0.055	0.0780	0.0013	0.0800	0.0019
1024	2.19	0.05	0.196	0.001	0.191	0.002
1536	9.61	0.08	0.856	0.017	0.641	0.007
2048	timeout	—	3.15	0.02	1.96	0.02
3072	skipped	—	11.48	0.18	5.15	0.02
4096	skipped	—	27.31	0.09	16.91	0.05

The largest feasible tested size was n = 1536 for ijk (its first execution at n = 2048 exceeded 60 s) and n = 4096 for ikj and blocked. The largest size attempted was 4096 for the optimised methods and 2048 for ijk. The memory budget was never reached: the estimate at n = 4096 is 384 MiB.

Table 3. Time per inner-loop iteration T/n^3 (nanoseconds) and speedups ("X vs Y" = median time of Y / median time of X). The size of B ($8n^2$ bytes) is shown for reference.

n	Size of B	ijk	ikj	blocked	ikj vs ijk	blocked vs ijk	blocked vs ikj
64	32 KiB	0.27	0.14	0.16	1.86	1.72	0.92
128	128 KiB	0.47	0.19	0.17	2.45	2.86	1.17
256	512 KiB	0.48	0.17	0.18	2.77	2.74	0.99
512	2 MiB	2.07	0.18	0.18	11.76	11.72	1.00
768	4.5 MiB	1.54	0.17	0.18	8.94	8.72	0.98
1024	8 MiB	2.04	0.18	0.18	11.18	11.49	1.03
1536	18 MiB	2.65	0.24	0.18	11.22	14.98	1.34
2048	32 MiB	—	0.37	0.23	—	—	1.61
3072	72 MiB	—	0.40	0.18	—	—	2.23
4096	128 MiB	—	0.40	0.25	—	—	1.61

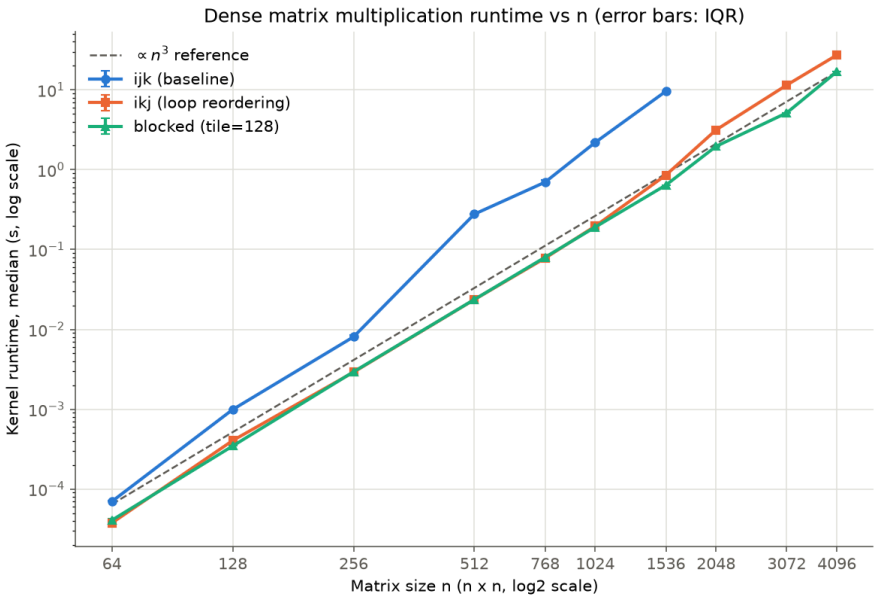


Figure 2. Dense kernel runtime against n (log-log scale, IQR error bars).

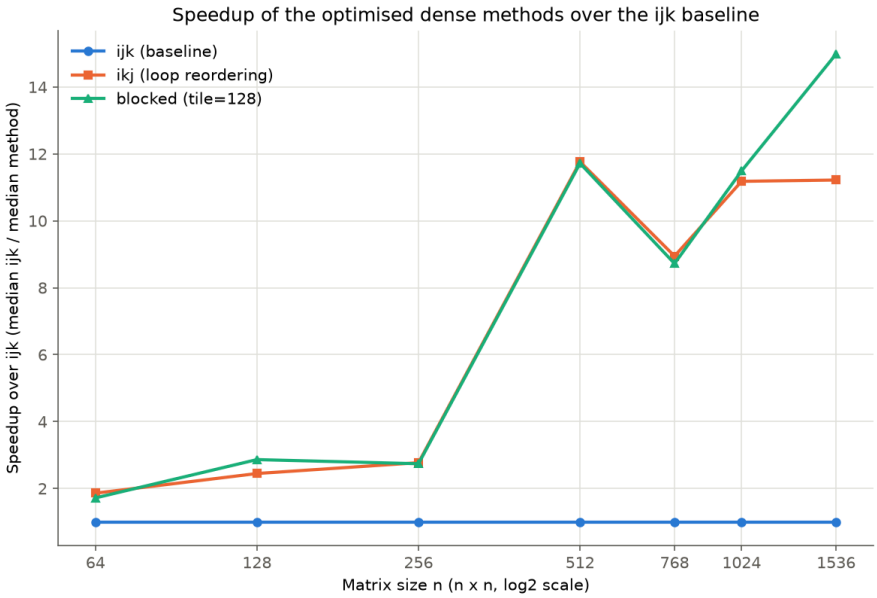


Figure 3. Speedup of ikj and blocked over ijk (median ijk / median method), for the sizes where ijk completed.

Variability within a run was low. From n = 256 the IQR was at most 2.4 % of the median for ikj and blocked, and at most 7.9 % for ijk (n = 768). The larger relative IQRs at n = 64–128 (up to 12 %) are absolute spreads of at most 42 µs. The peak working set was the same for the three methods at each size, from 3.9 MiB at n = 64 to 387.8 MiB at n = 4096, close to the 384 MiB of A, B and C (`results/dense/memory_vs_n.png`).

4.3 Run-to-run variation

The blocked kernel with T = 128 was measured in two separate runs. At n = 1024 the two medians agree within 1 % (0.193 s in the tile sweep, 0.191 s in the dense run). At n = 2048 they differ by 31 %: 2.58 s (IQR 0.045 s) in the tile sweep and 1.96 s (IQR 0.018 s) in the later dense run. Both IQRs are small, so the difference lies between runs, not within them. A likely cause is a different turbo, thermal or power

state of the laptop, but frequency and temperature were not recorded. Therefore we only compare methods within a run: the tile sweep is used only to rank tiles, and the dense and sparse results are each compared within their own run.

4.4 Sparse vs dense (Part B)

Table 4. Own CSR vs dense blocked (T = 128) on the same matrices: medians of 5 repetitions (seconds). Output density is measured / expected, with expected = $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$. End-to-end = convert + SpGEMM (derived). The last column is the dense time divided by the CSR end-to-end time (> 1 means CSR is faster).

n	d (%)	nnz A (= nnz B)	nnz C	C density (%)	SpGEMM	Convert A+B	End-to-end	Dense	Dense / end-to-end
1000	0.1	1 000	958	0.096 / 0.100	0.0000092	0.00221	0.00222	0.187	84.4
1000	1	10 000	95 440	9.54 / 9.52	0.00144	0.00211	0.00355	0.176	49.7
1000	5	50 000	918 565	91.9 / 91.8	0.0157	0.00291	0.0186	0.179	9.62
1000	10	100 000	999 958	99.996 / 99.996	0.0239	0.00405	0.0280	0.177	6.34
1000	25	250 000	1 000 000	100 / 100	0.0663	0.00644	0.0727	0.175	2.40
1000	50	500 000	1 000 000	100 / 100	0.216	0.0101	0.226	0.176	0.78
2000	0.1	4 000	7 868	0.197 / 0.200	0.000201	0.0117	0.0119	1.446	122
2000	1	40 000	724 188	18.1 / 18.1	0.00991	0.00993	0.0198	1.406	70.9
2000	5	200 000	3 973 101	99.3 / 99.3	0.0809	0.0147	0.0956	1.414	14.8
2000	10	400 000	4 000 000	100 / 100	0.136	0.0197	0.156	1.420	9.11
2000	25	1 000 000	4 000 000	100 / 100	0.496	0.0282	0.524	1.427	2.72
2000	50	2 000 000	4 000 000	100 / 100	1.823	0.0415	1.865	1.400	0.75
4000	0.1	16 000	64 204	0.401 / 0.399	0.00176	0.0398	0.0416	11.24	270
4000	1	160 000	5 275 068	33.0 / 33.0	0.0745	0.0483	0.123	11.22	91.4
4000	5	800 000	15 999 280	99.996 / 99.996	0.416	0.0650	0.481	11.25	23.4
4000	10	1 600 000	16 000 000	100 / 100	0.889	0.0779	0.967	11.19	11.6
4000	25	4 000 000	16 000 000	100 / 100	4.844	0.119	4.963	11.25	2.27
4000	50	8 000 000	16 000 000	100 / 100	17.953	0.161	18.114	11.17	0.62

n	d (%)	nnz A (= nnz B)	nnz C	C density (%)	SpGEMM	Convert A+B	End-to-end	Dense	Dense / end-to-end
10000	0.1	100 000	994 450	0.994 / 0.995	0.0410	not run	—	not run	—
10000	1	1 000 000	63 211 362	63.2 / 63.2	1.074	not run	—	not run	—
10000	5	5 000 000	100 000 000	100 / 100	5.449	not run	—	not run	—
10000	10	10 000 000	100 000 000	100 / 100	16.187	not run	—	not run	—
10000	25	25 000 000	—	— / 100	timeout	not run	—	not run	—
10000	50	50 000 000	—	— / 100	timeout	not run	—	not run	—

Within-run variability was low except for the shortest runs. From 1 % density the SpGEMM IQR was at most 5.4 % of the median (n = 2000, 50 %). At 0.1 % the SpGEMM takes microseconds and the relative IQR reached 73 % at n = 1000 (6.7 µs). The dense IQR was at most 13 % (n = 1000, 0.1 %, a 25 ms spread) and at most 5.2 % elsewhere. All IQRs are in `results/sparse/summary.md`. At n = 10000 the CSR kernel was feasible up to 10 % density (16.2 s); at 25 % and 50 % its first execution exceeded 60 s.

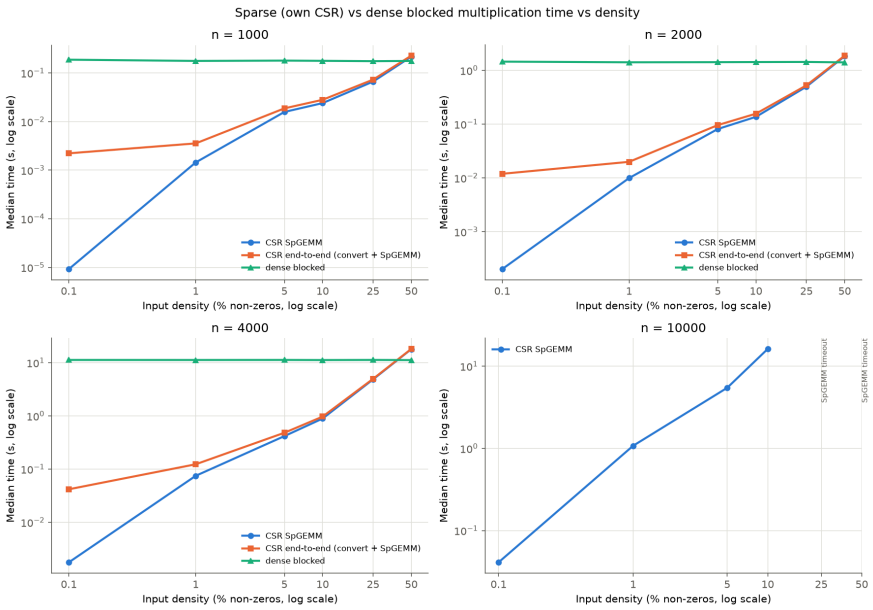


Figure 4. SpGEMM, CSR end-to-end and dense blocked times against input density for each n (log scales).

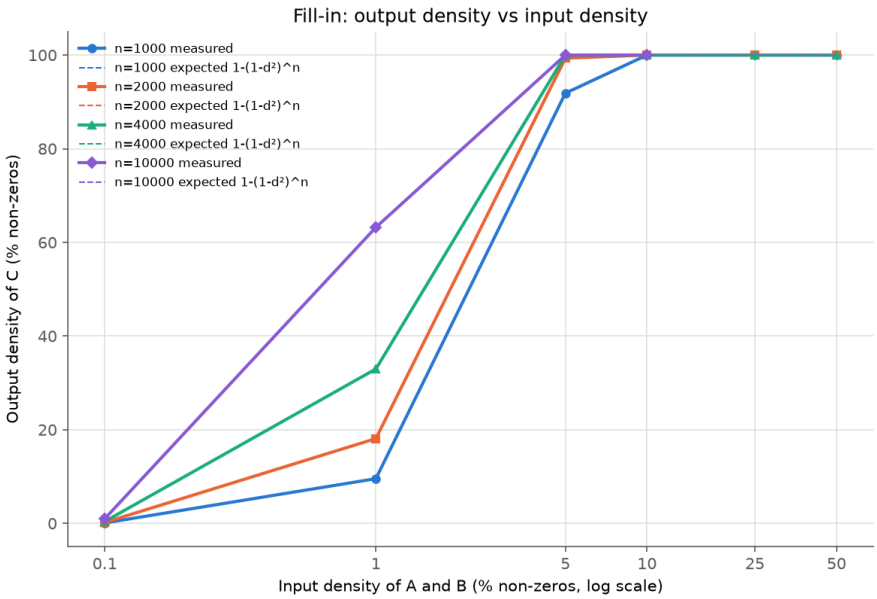


Figure 5. Measured output density of C against input density, with the expected $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$ (dashed; the measured and expected curves overlap).

Table 5. Cost per multiply-add (nanoseconds): SpGEMM time / (d^2n^3) and dense time / n^3.

d (%)	SpGEMM n = 1000	n = 2000	n = 4000	n = 10000	Dense blocked (all d)
0.1	9.2	25.2	27.5	41.0	0.175–0.187
1	14.4	12.4	11.6	10.7	
5	6.3	4.0	2.6	2.2	
10	2.4	1.7	1.4	1.6	
25	1.06	0.99	1.21	—	
50	0.86	0.91	1.12	—	

Table 6. Peak working set of the benchmark process (MiB). The dense value did not depend on density. The conversion process also holds the two dense inputs.

d (%)	SpGEMM n = 1000	n = 2000	n = 4000	n = 10000	Conversion n = 4000
0.1	3.9	4.0	5.0	17.8	248.4
1	5.2	13.1	68.0	750.4	252.2
5	15.5	53.9	205.3	1263.0	266.3
10	17.6	58.8	223.7	1377.4	284.6
25	21.0	72.5	278.6	—	339.5
50	26.7	95.4	370.1	—	431.1
Dense blocked	26.7	95.3–95.4	370.0	not run	

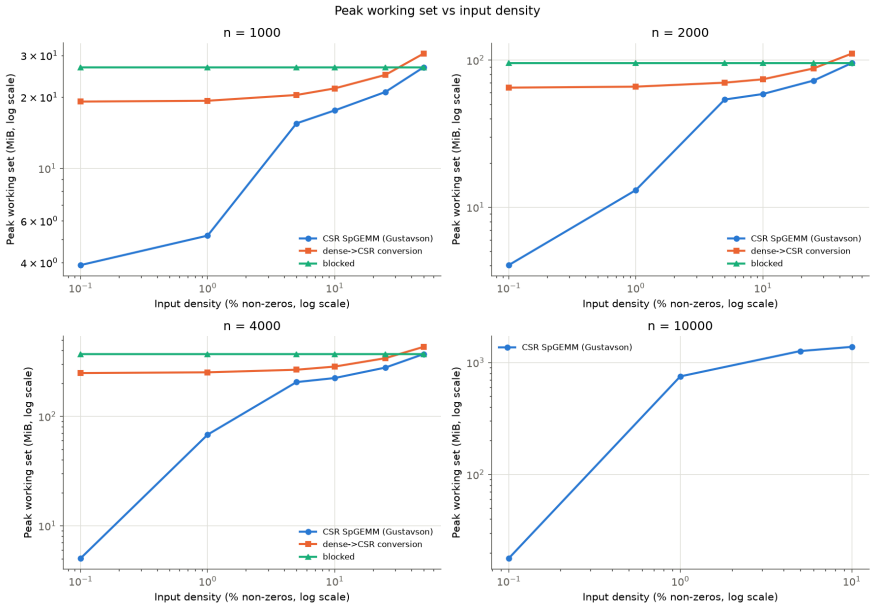


Figure 6. Peak working set of the SpGEMM, conversion and dense blocked processes against input density.

5. Discussion

5.1 Effects of the optimisations (Part A)

Loop reordering (H1). Supported. i-k-j was 1.9–2.8× faster than i-j-k for n ≤ 256 and 8.9–11.8× faster for n = 512–1536 (Table 3). The jump coincides with the step already seen in Assignment 1 [16]. The ijk time grew 34× from n = 256 to 512 for 8× more operations, and its cost per iteration rose from 0.48 to 2.07 ns as B (512 KiB → 2 MiB) left the L2 cache. ikj stayed at 0.14–0.19 ns per iteration up to n = 1024, i.e. it followed n^3, because each inner iteration reads consecutive elements of B and C. ijk at n = 768 (1.54 ns) was cheaper than at 512 and 1024 (about 2.05 ns), although B is larger than L2 at all three sizes. This is consistent with the suspicion from Assignment 1 that power-of-two strides add conflict misses to the column walk [5]. ikj deviated from n^3 when B approached and then exceeded the L3: 0.24 ns at n = 1536 (18 MiB) and about 0.4 ns from n = 2048 (32 MiB > 24 MiB). At those sizes most of B has to come from main memory again for every row of C.

Cache blocking (H2). Supported. Blocked and ikj were within 3 % of each other from n = 256 to 1024, where B fits in L2 or L3, so blocking adds nothing when no data has to be re-fetched from a slower level. From n = 1536 blocked was 1.34–2.23× faster than ikj, and its cost per iteration stayed at about 0.18 ns at n = 1536 and 3072. A tile of B is reused for 128 rows of C while it is cached, instead of being reloaded for every row. Blocking was slower per iteration at n = 2048 and 4096 (0.23–0.25 ns) than at 3072 (0.18 ns). This matches Lam et al.'s observation that power-of-two leading dimensions map the rows of a tile to the same cache sets [5]. We did not measure cache misses, so this remains a plausible explanation, not a proven one. Blocking raised the gain over ijk to 15× at n = 1536. Both optimised kernels made n = 4096 feasible within the budget (27.3 s and 16.9 s), while ijk already exceeded 60 s at n = 2048.

Tile size (H3). Rejected: T = 128 was best at both n, not the L1d-sized T = 64 (or T ≈ 45 if all three tiles had to fit in L1d). A plausible explanation follows from the access pattern of the micro-kernel. The innermost loop touches only one row segment of the B tile and one of C (2·8T = 2 KiB at T = 128), which

fits easily in L1d. The data that must stay cached for reuse across the i loop is the whole B tile (128 KiB). Three 128 × 128 tiles occupy 384 KiB, which fits in the 1.25 MiB L2, while three 256 × 256 tiles (1.5 MiB) do not, and T = 256 was slower again. Small tiles (16, 32) lose for another reason: the j loop is only 16–32 elements long, so loop overhead and the start-up of the inner loop weigh more. GCC enables vectorisation at `-O2` [15], but we did not inspect the generated code. Without hardware counters this explanation is plausible, not proven.

5.2 Effects of sparse storage and input structure (Part B)

These results compare a different representation and algorithm with the best dense kernel of Part A. They do not measure an optimisation of the same dense algorithm.

Where CSR helps (H4). Supported, with a crossover at a high density. The dense time was independent of density (0.175–0.187 s at n = 1000, 1.40–1.45 s at n = 2000, 11.17–11.25 s at n = 4000), because the dense kernel multiplies zeros like any other value. CSR end-to-end was faster than dense at every density up to 25 % for all three sizes, by 84–270× at 0.1 % and by 2.3–2.7× at 25 %. It was slower at 50 % (0.62–0.78×). The crossover therefore lies between 25 % and 50 %. With only these two points, its exact location is not determined.

Why the advantage shrinks. At 25 % density the SpGEMM performs d^2 = 6.25 % of the dense multiply-adds, yet it was only 2.3–2.9× faster than dense, not 16×. Table 5 shows why: each sparse multiply-add cost 1.0–1.2 ns, 5.6–6.9× more than a dense one (about 0.18 ns). The extra cost comes from the column-index load and the indirect, irregular update `acc[j] += ...` with its marker check, which the dense kernel does not need. At very low density the cost per operation was higher still (9–41 ns). In that regime the fixed per-row work, such as row-pointer reads, marker handling and sorting, dominates the few products. At 25 % the SpGEMM time grew 7.5× and 9.8× per doubling of n, close to the 8× of the dense kernel, so the speedup over dense stayed roughly constant with n at high density.

Fill-in and memory (H5). Supported. The measured output density matched $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$ closely at every point (Table 4, Figure 5). Fill-in depends strongly on n: at 1 % input density C was 9.5 % dense at n = 1000, 33 % at n = 4000 and 63 % at n = 10000. At n = 4000, 5 % input density already produced an essentially dense output (99.996 %). The memory advantage of CSR was therefore large only while C stayed sparse: at n = 4000 the SpGEMM process peaked at 5.0 MiB at 0.1 %, against 370.0 MiB for dense. Once C is dense, CSR stores it with 12 bytes per entry instead of 8, and at 50 % the inputs need 6 bytes per entry. The peak working set was then equal to dense (370.1 vs 370.0 MiB at n = 4000; 95.4 vs 95.3 MiB at n = 2000). At n = 10000, a dense C in CSR alone needs 1.1 GiB, and the process peaked at 1.35 GiB at 10 %.

Conversion cost. Converting A and B from dense scans all n^2 entries of each matrix, so its cost depends mainly on n (2.2, 11.7 and 39.8 ms at 0.1 %). At 0.1 % it was 23–240× longer than the SpGEMM itself and dominated the end-to-end time. CSR was still 84–270× faster than dense, so conversion did not move the crossover: the dense / end-to-end ratios at 25 % and 50 % (Table 4) differ from the dense / SpGEMM ratios by less than 10 %. Its memory cost is larger than its time cost, because the conversion process holds both dense inputs (248–431 MiB at n = 4000).

Density alone does not determine performance. The same density gave very different outcomes depending on n and on the output. At 1 % the CSR end-to-end speedup was 50× at n = 1000 and 91× at n = 4000. At 5 % the output was 92 % dense at n = 1000 but fully dense at n = 4000, which changed the memory picture from sparse to dense. At n = 10000 the CSR kernel exceeded the 60 s budget at 25

%, a density at which it was 2.3–2.9× faster than dense at smaller n. The cost per operation, fill-in and the absolute work d^2n^3 all matter, and these results hold only for uniformly random positions.

5.3 Limitations

- All data come from one laptop. Run-to-run differences of up to 31 % were seen between runs (Section 4.3), so only within-run comparisons are made. Frequency, temperature and power state were not recorded.
- No hardware performance counters were used: the cache explanations are consistent with the timings but not proven, and the power-of-two effects are inferred from only a few sizes.
- Only one sparsity pattern was tested (uniform random positions). Structured matrices (banded, block-diagonal, power-law degree distributions) have different fill-in and locality and may behave very differently.
- Part B compared CSR with one dense method (blocked, T = 128). The density crossover is located only between 25 % and 50 %.
- All code is sequential, and vectorisation was left to the compiler without inspection.
- The peak working set covers the whole process, including the loaded inputs. The 0.25 s polling used to enforce the memory budget could miss a short spike. The reported peak itself is the operating system's counter.
- The cross-check against NumPy and SciPy used small sizes ($n \leq 200$). Larger sizes rely on the unit tests and on the agreement of the checksums printed for each repetition.

6. Conclusions

Within the tested scope (one Intel Core i7-12650H laptop, Windows 11, gcc 16.1.0 `-O2`, float64, one thread, dense n = 64–4096 and uniformly random sparse inputs with n = 1000–10000), the study establishes that:

1. Loop reordering to i-k-j removes the column-stride penalty of the naive kernel. It was 8.9–11.8× faster than i-j-k from n = 512 to 1536 and followed n^3 while B fitted in the L3 cache.
2. Cache blocking only helped once i-k-j had to stream B from beyond the L3 cache. It was then 1.3–2.2× faster than i-k-j. Both optimisations raised the largest feasible size from 1536 (i-j-k) to 4096, the largest size attempted.
3. The best tile was T = 128, whose working set fits in L2 rather than L1d. The prediction that an L1d-sized tile would be best was wrong for this micro-kernel.
4. For uniformly random inputs, the own CSR SpGEMM, including conversion, was faster than the dense blocked kernel up to 25 % density and slower at 50 % for n = 1000, 2000 and 4000, even though it does d^2 of the dense work. Each sparse operation cost about 6× more than a dense one.
5. Output fill-in follows $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$ and grows with n. Once C is dense, CSR loses its memory advantage and its peak memory equals that of dense storage at 50 % density.

The study does not establish the exact density of the crossover, the hardware cause of the tile-size and power-of-two effects, or how structured sparsity patterns behave. Finer density steps, hardware counters and structured test matrices would address these questions.

7. References

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8. Reproducibility materials

All materials are in the repository above, in `assignment-2/`:

- Source code: `c/matmul.c` (dense kernels), `c/csr.c` (CSR, conversion, SpGEMM), `c/runner.c`; unit tests `c/test_matmul.c` and `tests/`; harness `benchmark.py` and `bench_common.py`; cross-check `cross_check.py`.
- Inputs: `data/generate.py` (dense, from Assignment 1) and `data/generate_sparse.py`; seeds, formats and definitions in `data/README.md`; generated sparse parameters in `data/sparse/manifest.json`.
- Configuration: `bench_config_tiles.json`, `bench_config_dense.json`, `bench_config_sparse.json`.
- Raw data and environment: `results/{tiles,dense,sparse}/raw_measurements.csv` and `environment.json`; topology and caches in `tools/cpu_topology.json` and `tools/cache_info.json`.
- Analysis: `results/analyze.py` produces `summary.md` / `summary.csv`, `sparse_comparison.csv` and all figures.
- Report: `report/report.md`, rendered to PDF by `report/build_pdf.py`.

Exact commands, from PowerShell inside `assignment-2/` (as in `assignment-2/README.md`):

Step	Command
Setup	`py -3.13 -m venv .venv` then `.venv\Scripts\python -m pip install -r requirements.txt`
Build and test	`.venv\Scripts\python build.py` then `.venv\Scripts\python run_tests.py`
Tile sweep	`.venv\Scripts\python benchmark.py --config bench_config_tiles.json`
Dense methods	`.venv\Scripts\python benchmark.py --config bench_config_dense.json`
Sparse vs dense	`.venv\Scripts\python benchmark.py --config bench_config_sparse.json`
Tables and figures	`.venv\Scripts\python results\analyze.py`
Report PDF	`.venv\Scripts\python report\build_pdf.py`

Generative AI disclosure

In this project, I used generative AI: Claude (Anthropic), through Claude Code. The AI proposed the experimental design (methods, sizes, densities, budgets and timing boundaries), which I reviewed and approved before any measurement was taken. Based on that design, I authorised it to implement the code (the optimised dense kernels, the CSR conversion and SpGEMM, the tests, the benchmark harness and the analysis scripts). At my request, it ran the tile sweep and the dense and sparse benchmarks on my laptop; I chose the tile size (T = 128) from the sweep results. The AI also helped me understand the code and the results, and drafted the text of this report from the stored measurements. I reviewed and edited the report and checked its figures against the raw data.

I have a full understanding of both the code and the conclusions. All numerical results are derived from measurements stored in the repository; none were generated by the AI tool.